

Evelyn Quan, Lydia Roh, Leena Khattat, James Caviness, Timothy Hsiao

Team 9

Professor Vineet Bafna

June 6, 2025

MDM2 Amplification in ecDNA – BIMM/BENG/CSE 182 Final Project Report

Part 1

Introduction - Role of MDM2 in cancer

In this study, our team investigated the role of the *MDM2* gene in cancer, particularly in the context of extrachromosomal DNA (ecDNA) amplification. *MDM2* (Murine Double Minute 2) is a gene that encodes an E3 ubiquitin ligase, which is responsible for regulating the tumor suppressor protein p53. Under normal physiological conditions, *MDM2* maintains p53 homeostatically at low levels to prevent unwanted cell cycle arrest or apoptosis. However, when *MDM2* is overexpressed/amplified, it can excessively degrade p53, undermining its tumor suppressor functions and facilitating uncontrolled cell proliferation.

MDM2 amplification is found in multiple human cancers: liposarcomas, breast cancer, osteosarcoma, and glioblastoma. Additionally, *MDM2* expression is upregulated by Estrogen Receptor Alpha (ER α) through a p53-independent pathway. *MDM2* can also degrade ER α via ubiquitination, creating a complex feedback loop that may promote hormone-derived cancer progression, such as breast cancer.

Evolutionary History of MDM2

Comparative genomics studies have shown that *MDM2* and its paralog *MDM4* originated from a gene duplication event that occurred before the emergence of bony vertebrates, over 440 million years ago.

• . Leucoraja erinaceus	sharks & rays	636	4	Leucoraja erinaceus hits
• . Stegostoma tigrinum	sharks & rays	636	9	Stegostoma tigrinum hits
• . Amblyraja radiata	sharks & rays	623	5	Amblyraja radiata hits
• . Callorhynchus milii	chimaeras	607	5	Callorhynchus milii hits
• . Myxine glutinosa	hagfishes	421	2	Myxine glutinosa hits

Figure 1: Protein-protein BLAST results identifying distant orthologs of *MDM2*.

This table shows BLASTP hits for *MDM2* against early-diverging vertebrates, including sharks, rays, chimaeras, and hagfish. Notably, the most distantly related hit was found in *Myxine glutinosa* (Atlantic hagfish), with a bit score of 421 and 2 hits.

To support the studies, we performed a protein-protein BLAST search, where we identified one of the most distantly related orthologs of *MDM2* in the Atlantic hagfish (*Myxine glutinosa*), a jawless vertebrate, suggesting functional conservation for at least ~310 million years. Furthermore, homologs of the *MDM* gene family have been detected in invertebrates such as *Ciona intestinalis* (sea squirt), indicating that the ancestral origin of the gene family more than 500 million years.

Amplification Types in Pediatric vs. Adult Tumors

To understand the distribution of *MDM2* amplification mechanisms, we compared amplification types between pediatric and adult (PCAWG) tumor cohorts using data from the Amplicon Repository. Both cohorts exhibit similar patterns across four amplification types: ecDNA, linear, BFB (breakage-fusion-bridge), and complex-non-cyclic. However, ecDNA amplification was more frequent in pediatric tumors (42.3%) compared to adult tumors (26.4%), a difference of approximately 16%. This suggests that the mechanisms of *MDM2* amplification, and possibly its oncogenic effects, are related to age.

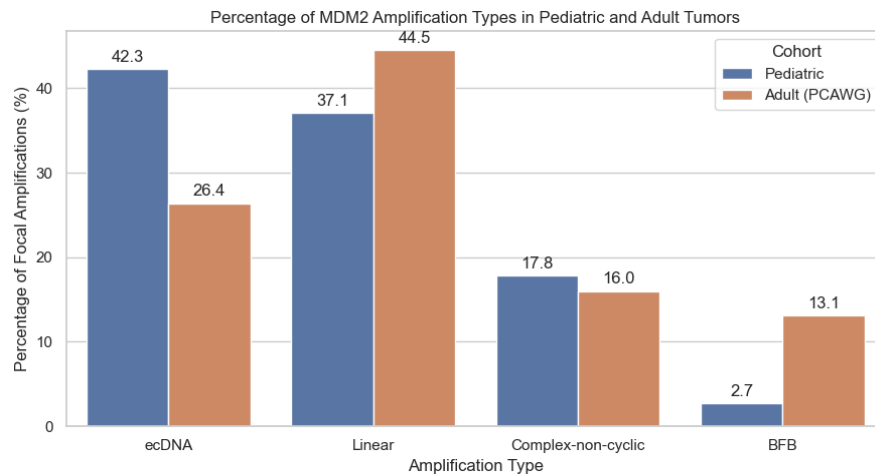


Figure 2: Distribution of *MDM2* amplification types in pediatric and adult tumors.

Bar graph comparing the percentage of focal amplifications of the *MDM2* gene by amplification type, ecDNA, linear, complex-non-cyclic, and BFB (breakage-fusion-bridge), across pediatric and adult (PCAWG) tumor cohorts.

Co-Occurrence of MDM2 with Other Oncogenes on ecDNA

Our analysis of *MDM2*-containing ecDNA amplicons revealed several oncogenes that frequently co-occur with *MDM2*. In adult tumors, 29 ecDNA amplicons containing *MDM2* were

identified, with 68 co-amplified genes. The most common and closely located were *CDK4*, *YEATS4*, and *AGAP2*. These genes are all located on chromosome 12 and have been implicated in cell cycle regulation and oncogenic signaling. Their recurrent co-amplification with *MDM2* suggests a possible synergistic effect in tumor progression.

In pediatric tumors, 15 *MDM2*-containing ecDNAs were found, with 23 co-occurring genes. The same three oncogenes, *CDK4*, *YEATS4*, and *AGAP2*, were also frequently amplified. The consistent co-localization of these genes across distinct age cohorts implies that they may be part of a core oncogenic module on ecDNA. The preservation of these combinations across tumor types suggests selective advantages conferred by their joint amplification, such as enhanced proliferation, survival, or evasion of cell-cycle checkpoints.

Table 1: Genes co-amplified with *MDM2* on ecDNA in adult and pediatric tumors.

Gene	Count	Fraction	Distance to <i>MDM2</i> (bp)	
CDK4	24	0.83	11076842	
YEATS4	23	0.79	548446	
AGAP2	23	0.79	11094891	
HMGA2	15	0.52	2931473	
IFNG	13	0.45	669606	
TBC1D15	8	0.28	3055176	
DDIT3	7	0.24	11308307	
GLI1	5	0.17	11360834	
SYT1	5	0.17	10331531	
ELK3	5	0.17	27405239	
PA2G4	4	0.14	12717626	
ERBB3	4	0.14	12735025	
LRIG3	4	0.14	9930531	
NACA	4	0.14	12107997	
WIF1	3	0.1	3740895	
DCD	3	0.1	14180383	
Rare <i>MDM2</i> co-occurrences (≤ 2 samples)	52 genes	0.03–0.07	∞	37
			Ch12	14

Gene	Count	Fraction	Distance to <i>MDM2</i> (bp)	
YEATS4	14	0.93	548446	
AGAP2	9	0.6	11094891	
CDK4	9	0.6	11076842	
IFNG	7	0.47	669606	
DDIT3	7	0.47	11308307	
LRIG3	6	0.4	9930531	
GLI1	6	0.4	11360834	
HMGA2	4	0.27	2931473	
TBC1D15	3	0.2	3055176	
WIF1	3	0.2	3740895	
CCND2	3	0.2	64602824	
FGF6	3	0.2	64362362	
BTG1	2	0.13	23316202	
LDHB	2	0.13	47180268	
KRAS	2	0.13	43598773	
Rare <i>MDM2</i> co-occurrences (=1 samples)	8 genes	0.07	∞	6
			Ch12	2

Tables display the most frequent oncogenes co-occurring with *MDM2* on ecDNA amplicons in adult tumors (left, PCAWG cohort) and pediatric tumors (right). The “ ∞ ” symbol indicates that the gene is located on a different chromosome from *MDM2*. Rare co-occurrences are grouped at the bottom of each table.

Part 2

Amino Acid Sequence

Using the NCBI Refseq database, we obtained the amino acid sequence for *MDM2* transcript variant 1:

MVRSRQMCNTNMSVPTDGAVTTSQIPASEQETLVRPKPLLLKLLKSVGAQKDTYTMKE
VLFYLGQYIMTKRLYDEKQQHIVYCSNDLLGDLFGVPSFSVKEHRKIYTMiYRNLVVVN
QQESSDSGTSVSENARCHLEGGSDQKDLVQELQEEKPSSSHLVSRPSTSSRRRAISETTEENS
DELSGERQKRHKSDSISLSFDESLALCVIREICCERSSSSESTGTPSNPDL DAGVSEHSGD
WLDQDSVSDQFSVEFEVESL DSEDYSLSEEGQELSDEDEDEVYQVT VYQAGESD TDSFEE
DPEISLADYWKCTSCNEMNPPLPSHCNRCWALRENWLPEDKGKDKGEISEKAKLENST
QAEFGFDPDCKKTIVNDSRESCVEENDDKITQASQSQESDYSPSTSSSIYSSQEDVK
EFEREETQDKESVESSLPLNAIEPCVICQGRPKNGCIVHGKTGHLMACFTCAKKLKKRN
KPCPVC RQPIQMIVLTYFP

This is the most complete isoform of *MDM2* present in the database.

Genomic Region

MDM2 contains 497 amino acids and is located on chromosome 12. The ecDNA sample we chose was [sample DO10960-SP23739](#). The *MDM2*-coding portion of this ecDNA has an origin sequence on chromosome 12 of the GRCh37 genome, ranging from position 69110024 to position 69386333. In order to retrieve the actual sequence, we went to the UCSC Genome Browser and downloaded the nucleotide sequence associated within the given range.

Genomic Sequence

We used tBLASTn to BLAST the *MDM2* transcript variant 1 protein sequence against the ecDNA sequence we downloaded from the UCSC Genome Browser. This BLAST uncovered 10 hits. The hits in terms of position ranges on chromosome 12 are as follows:

- 69202987 — 69203076
- 69207371 — 69207412
- 69210590 — 69210748

- 69214104 — 69214154
- 69218143 — 69218211
- 69218336 — 69218431
- 69222551 — 69222712
- 69229610 — 69229768
- 69230453 — 69230530
- 69233043 — 69233627

These hits roughly correspond to 10 exons that make up the coding genomic structure of *MDM2*. Although the BLAST search uncovered 10 exons, *MDM2* transcript variant 1 actually has 11 coding exons, according to the UCSC Genome Browser.

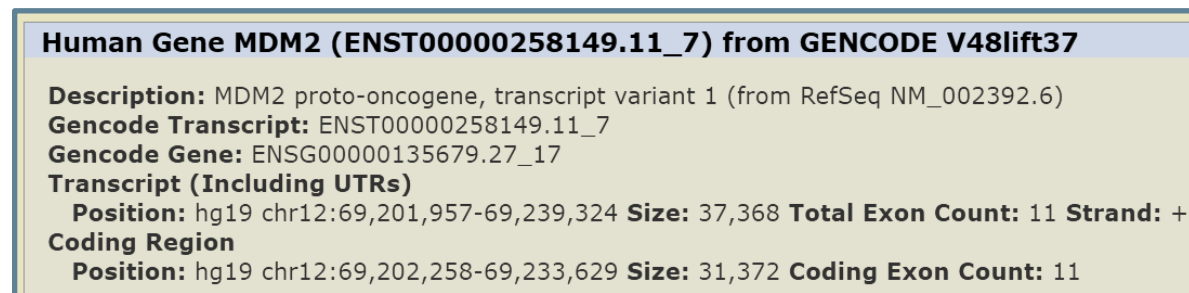


Figure 3: *MDM2* transcript variant 1 as seen on the UCSC Genome Browser.

We initially thought that this discrepancy could be due to *MDM2* being truncated in the ecDNA, but that is unlikely. The coding region in Figure 3 is from position 69202258 to position 69233629, which is well within the 69110024 - 69386333 range on the ecDNA. Additionally, the first exon— the one that BLAST missed— which initially appears quite large, is mostly an untranslated region.

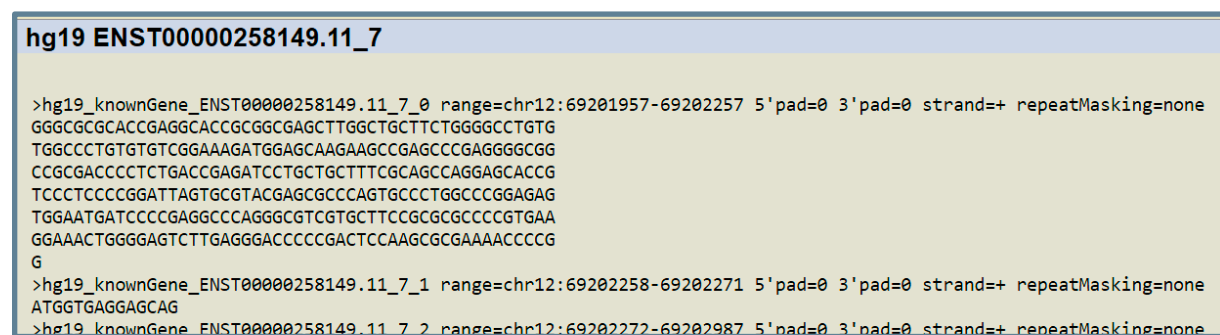


Figure 4: *MDM2* transcript variant 1 exons split into individual FASTA sequences.

In figure 4, the first sequence is the UTR, while the second sequence is the actual coding portion

of the exon. Since it is so small, it is reasonable that even though it should align with the first 4 amino acids of the *MDM2* protein sequence, the resulting alignment score would be so low that BLAST wouldn't recognize it as a hit.

Part 3

Extracting, Clustering, and Filtering Discordant Edges

Using the PCAWG database from Amplicon Repository, we extracted 10 datasets containing *MDM2*, listed here: [DO10960-SP23739](#), [DO10970-SP23754](#), [DO11447-SP24708](#), [DO13348-SP28335](#), [DO13474-SP28581](#), [DO14049-SP29697](#), [DO218742-SP117983](#), [DO219944-SP121761](#), [DO219945-SP121763](#), and [DO219949-SP121774](#), which is also accessible on our [Google Drive](#). With these files, we ran a series of Unix commands to extract [discordant edges](#) into individual files, then combine them into a single file containing all discordant edges from the 10 relevant amplicons. The Unix commands were as follows, where SAMPLE denotes the sample ID (ex. DO13348-SP28335), xxxxx denotes the long string of characters unique to the extracted results, and X denotes the amplicon number:

1. `cd SAMPLE`
2. `gunzip aa_directory.tar.gz`
3. `tar -xf aa_directory.tar`
4. `cd xxxxx...xxxxx_AA_results`
5. `cat xxxxx...xxxxx_ampliconX_graph.txt | grep "discordant" >`

SAMPLE ampliconX discordant edges.txt

[illegible]

Figure 5: Example of using the Commands to Extract Individual Amplicon Discordant Edges

Next, we combined all files into a single "all_edges.txt" file using Unix cat, available [here](#).

To identify common structural variants, we sought to cluster these discordant edges such that if two edges originated and terminated at nearby points on the same chromosome, they would be combined. After trying many cutoffs ranging from 10 to 500,000, we decided on a cutoff of 1,000 base pairs to cluster by, clustering 1298 edges into 1248 clusters. This indicates that most of our edges were unique. Using 10,000 as the cutoff yielded 1227 clusters, which we decided was not enough difference to warrant such a large increase in clustering leniency. Trial clustering cutoff graphs are available [here](#). We wrote the file "cluster_edges.py" to cluster our edges, available [here](#). We decided to filter the resultant clusters such that only edges originating or terminating close to the *MDM2* region of the genome were analyzed in future parts. We decided on an arbitrary broad cutoff of 12:69,000,000 to 12:69,300,000 to analyze.

Identification of Structural Variant Type

Next, we proceeded to parse the filtered, clustered edges to identify structural variant types corresponding to each discordant edge. In total, there were 32 inversions, 16 circularizations, 6 translocations, and 17 deletions found from our 71 filtered edges. They were classified in the following way:

- If there was a "+" for the start position of the edge and "-" for the end position, this indicates either a translocation or deletion is present.
 - If the *chromosomes* of the start and end positions are different from one another, the edge would be assigned as a translocation. Otherwise, it would be a deletion.
- If the signs of the start and end positions of the discordant edge were the same, this corresponds to an inversion. The inversion could be either a right foldback if the positions were both "+", or a left foldback if they were both "-".
- Lastly, an edge was considered a circularization if there was a "-" at the start position and "+" at the end.

Without filtering, the sashimi plot was very cluttered, and contained edges far from *MDM2*.

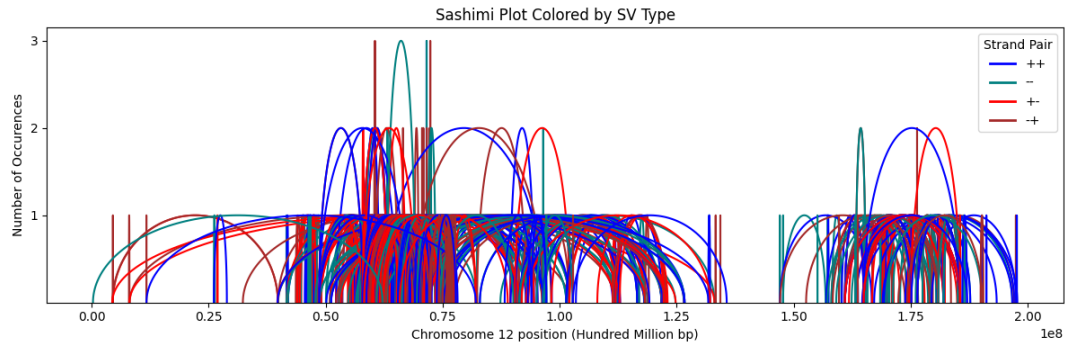


Figure 6: Sashimi Plot without Filtering

However, after filtering, a cleaner graph was produced, leaving us with a few relevant edges to analyze. We filtered with the file "filter_edges.py", available [here](#), which filtered out all edges that did not start or end in the desired region of chromosome 12.

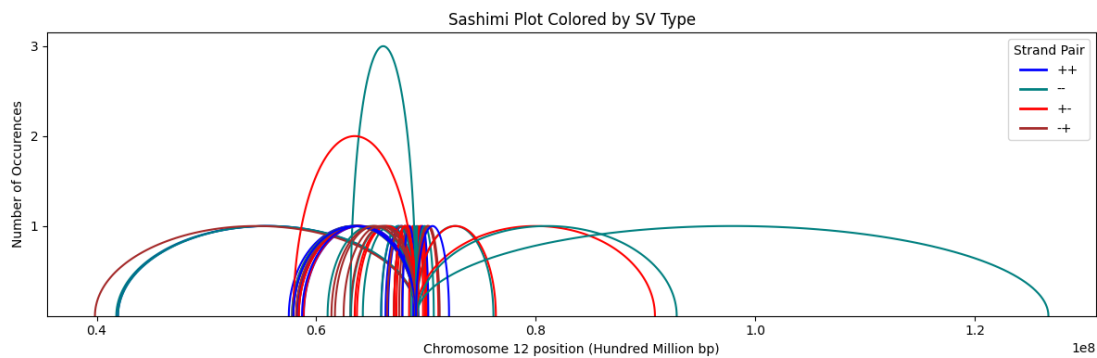


Figure 7: Sashimi Plot after Filtering 69,000,000-69,300,000

These plots were made with the file "plot_graph.py", also [here](#). It uses matplotlib to plot arcs, where the height denotes the edge count (# of edges in cluster), the color denotes the SV type, and the endpoints denote the positions on chromosome 12.

Biological Relevance of Most Frequently Occurring Structural Variants

We looked more closely into the biological relevance of the top two most frequently occurring structural variants, with the most common being an inversion (left foldback) that occurred three times around 12:69080680- → 12:63111863-. Through studying this region on UCSC Genome Browser, we found that the start position is within the middle of the *PPM1H* gene, and that the end position is directly within the *NUP107* and *RAP1B* genes. *PPM1H* is known to play a role in tumor suppression through dephosphorylating proteins involved in cell

proliferation and metastasis. Meanwhile, *RAP1B* is a small GTPase that can affect cancer growth and invasion through the regulation of cell adhesion, growth, and differentiation. Lastly, *NUP107* encodes a nucleoporin that serves as a component of the nuclear pore complex, which helps to transport all molecules leaving and entering the nucleus. Its overexpression can increase cancer cell survival by making cells more resistant to oxidative damage.

An inversion occurring at these coordinates results in the truncation of these genes in the *MDM2*-containing ecDNA, which could potentially lead to a loss of function or otherwise alter the typical expression levels of these genes. Inhibited *PPM1H* function in the ecDNA would directly promote towards tumor growth due to inactivated suppression; however, in the case of *RAP1B* and *NUP107* which have documented oncogenic functions, it may be possible that their expression is otherwise unaffected if the inversion did not truncate essential parts of the genes' structures required for their expression. Another possibility could be that the inversion brought enhancers or other distal regulatory elements in greater proximity to these genes in the ecDNA to lead to their enhanced expression.

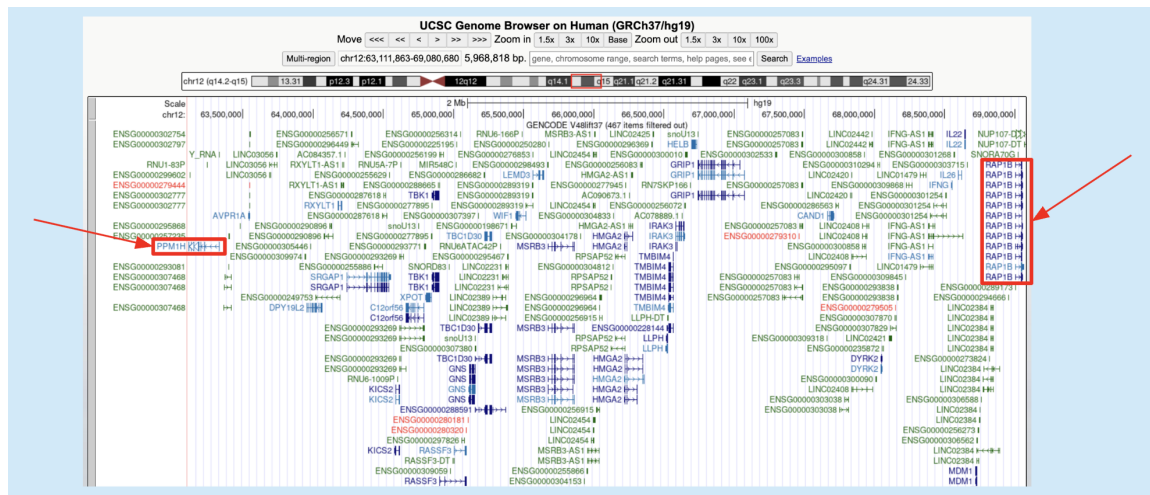


Figure 8: Screenshot of the inversion region in UCSC Genome Browser, with *PPM1H* and *RAP1B* outlined in red.

The second-most frequent structural variant was a deletion that occurred two times from 12:69080734+ → 12:57914108-. The deleted region was several million base pairs long and contained 119 genes overall, including *PPM1H* again and additionally the *USP15*, *RASSF3*, and *IRAK3* genes. The latter three genes of interest all have tumor suppressive functions, such as *USP15* through the inhibition of the Wnt signaling pathway, or *RASSF3* through the ubiquitination

and degradation of *MDM2* to increase *p53* levels. Meanwhile, there is also literature supporting *IRAK3*'s tumor suppressor role in prostate cancer cells. The deletion of all these genes in the ecDNA could heighten tumorigenicity by removing suppressive roadblocks to proliferation in place of more encouraged cell growth. Furthermore, *STAT6* is a transcription factor crucial for the regulation of cell proliferation, metastasis, and apoptosis. It resides directly upstream of the deleted region, while *MDM2* is directly downstream. In the ecDNA, these two genes would likely come into close proximity with one another, and therefore would be much more likely to have interactions between them that promote *MDM2*'s expression.

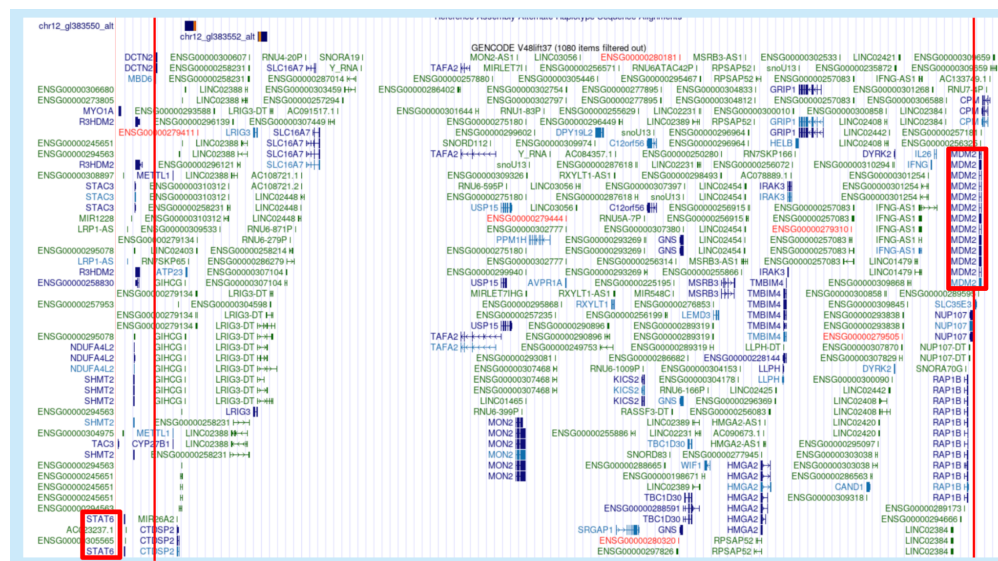


Figure 9: Vertical red lines indicating the boundaries of the deleted region in the ecDNA, with *STAT6* and *MDM2* being directly upstream and downstream (respectively) of this region.

Taken altogether, these findings suggest that the change in expression for genes located within the most common structural variants, particularly *PPM1H*, in conjunction with *MDM2* expression in ecDNA may strongly promote cancer progression. In particular, it is the loss of function of tumor suppressor genes and the possible rearrangement of distal regulatory elements to enhance oncogene expression which promotes this outcome. Furthermore, the deletion of genomic regions can bring upstream oncogenes such as the transcription factor *STAT6*, to be in closer proximity to *MDM2* and induce its expression as previously found in the literature.

Citations

1. Project: PCAWG. *Amplicon Repository*.
<https://ampliconrepository.org/project/655c060abba7c925095555da>. Accessed 28 May, 2025.
2. Wu L, Maki CG. MDM2: RING Finger Protein and Regulator of p53. In: Madame Curie Bioscience Database [Internet]. Austin (TX): Landes Bioscience; 2000-2013.
<https://www.ncbi.nlm.nih.gov/books/NBK6130/>
3. Momand, Jamil et al. “The evolution of MDM2 family genes.” *Gene* vol. 486,1-2 (2011): 23-30. doi:10.1016/j.gene.2011.06.030.
<https://pmc.ncbi.nlm.nih.gov/articles/PMC3162079/>
4. Perez et al. The UCSC Genome Browser database: 2025 update. *Nucleic Acids Research* 2025 PMID: 39460617, DOI: 10.1093/nar/gkae974
<https://pubmed.ncbi.nlm.nih.gov/39460617/>
5. Yang, X., Guo, J., Li, W., Li, C., Zhu, X., Liu, Y., & Wu, X. (2023). PPM1H is down-regulated by ATF6 and dephosphorylates p-RPS6KB1 to inhibit progression of hepatocellular carcinoma. *Molecular Therapy – Nucleic Acids*, 33, 164–179.
<https://doi.org/10.1016/j.omtn.2023.06.013>
6. NIH National Library of Medicine – National Center for Biotechnology Information. (2025, May 3). *RAP1B*, member of *RAS* oncogene family. Retrieved June 5, 2025, from
<https://www.ncbi.nlm.nih.gov/gene/5908>
7. Li, Z. H., Li, J. Y., Zhu, Y. J., Dai, L., Wu, Z. T., Nong, J. S., Zhuo, T., Li, F. L., He, L. Y., Liang, H. H., Zang, F. L., Wang, Y. Y., Chen, M. W., Huang, W. J., & Cao, J. B. (2023). Analysis of Nucleoporin 107 Overexpression and Its Association with Prognosis and Immune Infiltration in Lung Adenocarcinoma by Bioinformatics Methods. *International journal of general medicine*, 16, 5449–5465.
<https://doi.org/10.2147/IJGM.S441185>
8. Li, Y. C., Cai, S. W., Shu, Y. B., Chen, M. W., & Shi, Z. (2022). USP15 in Cancer and Other Diseases: From Diverse Functionsto Therapeutic Targets. *Biomedicines*, 10(2), 474. <https://doi.org/10.3390/biomedicines10020474>
9. Kudo, T., Ikeda, M., Nishikawa, M., Yang, Z., Ohno, K., Nakagawa, K., & Hata, Y. (2012). The RASSF3 candidate tumor suppressor induces apoptosis and G1-S cell-cycle

arrest via p53. *Cancer Research*, 72(11), 2901–2911. <https://doi.org/10.1158/0008-5472.CAN-12-0572>

10. Oseni, S. O., Naar, C., Philemy, M., Laguer, G. A., Ambrin, F., Metayer, S., Perez, A., Betty, J., Praveen, P., Hartmann, J., Pavlovic, M., & Kumi-Diaka, J. (2021). Deregulation and therapeutic potential of targeting IRAK3 as chronic inflammation suppressor in prostate cancer. *Cancer Research*, 81(13), 1753-1753. <https://doi.org/10.1158/1538-7445.AM2021-1753>
11. Na-Ra, H., Hyun-A, O., Sun-Young, N., Phil-Dong, M., Do-Won, K., Hyung-Min, K., & Hyun-Ja, J. (2014). TSLP Induces Mast Cell Development and Aggravates Allergic Reactions through the Activation of MDM2 and STAT6. *Journal of Investigative Dermatology*, 134(10), 2521-2530. <https://doi.org/10.1038/jid.2014.198>.